

Quiz 1 — Last-Minute Revision

Built from the class notes and the lecture slide deck, in the order they were taught. J. M. Smith (*Chemical Engineering Kinetics*, Ch. 7–8) is used only where the notes are compressed — those additions are boxed and labelled, so you can always tell lecture material from book material.

Anchor: CRE Quiz 1 notes (21 pp.) · CRE-II_Q1 lecture notes / ppt (10 slides) · Ref: JMS Ch. 7, Ch. 8-1 → 8-10

IF YOU ONLY HAVE 20 MINUTES

§18 formula sheet → §19 numbers → the **seven steps** (§5) → the **physisorption vs chemisorption** table (§10) → the **Langmuir derivation** (§11) → the **five densities** (§15). Everything else is recall-only.

§ 1 · Lecture 2-3 revision

Where this course starts

Designing a reactor = **kinetics** + **flow pattern**. CRE-I gave you both for a single phase. CRE-II keeps the same design equations and changes only what goes into the rate.

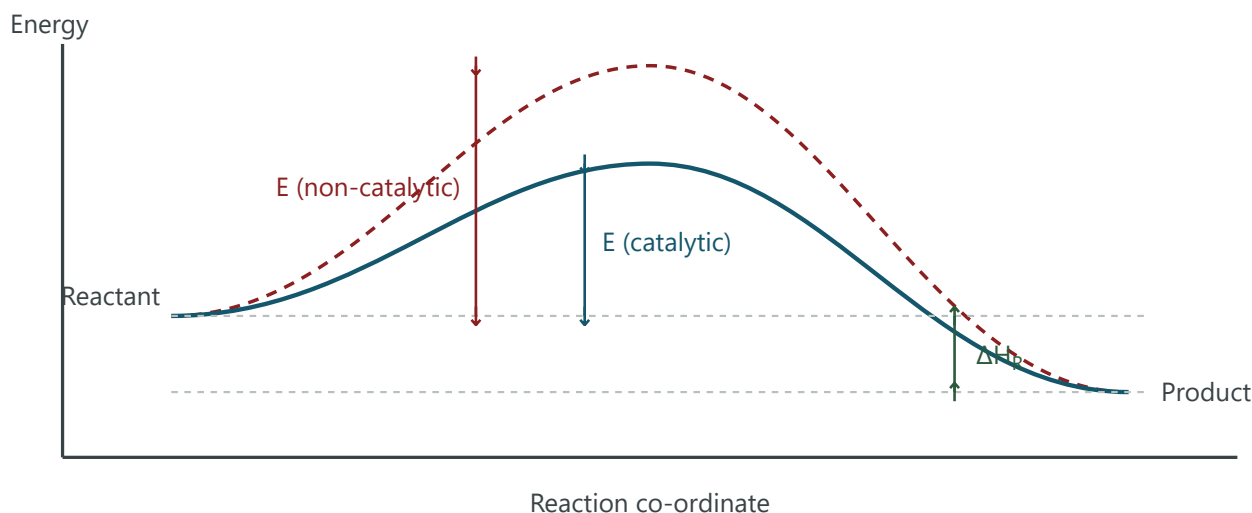
KINETICS — THE POWER LAW

$$(-r_A) = k C_A^n = k_0 e^{-E_a/RT} C_A^n$$

FLOW PATTERN — THE TWO IDEAL LIMITS

- **Complete mixing** → CSTR / MFR
- **No axial mixing** → PFR

► The energy diagram — what a catalyst actually changes



The catalyst lowers E_a only. The two levels — and therefore ΔH_R — do not move.

THE SINGLE MOST EXAMINABLE SENTENCE IN MODULE 1

A catalyst **alters the rate but not the thermodynamics**. ΔH , ΔG and the equilibrium conversion are unchanged; only the activation energy changes. A catalyst that speeds the forward reaction speeds the reverse one by exactly the same factor.

► Multi-step reactions and the rate-determining step

For a sequence $A \rightarrow B \rightarrow C$ proceeding through an intermediate A^* :



The step with the **largest** activation-energy barrier is the slowest, and therefore controls the overall rate.

§ 2 · Lecture 5

Classifying heterogeneous reactions

A reaction is **heterogeneous** when more than one phase is present — so a phase boundary must be crossed before anything can react. Two cuts are made in the notes: first by **phases involved**, then by **catalytic vs non-catalytic**.

► Cut 1 — by phases

Gas + solid · Liquid + solid · Liquid + liquid · Solid + solid

► Cut 2 — catalytic or not

CLASS NOTES, PAGE 2 — WITH THE PHASES EACH ONE RUNS IN

Class	Examples given in lecture	Phases
Non-catalytic	Combustion of a solid; gasification; partial combustion	G/S — a solid <i>reactant</i> is consumed, so the rate changes with time (inherently transient)
Catalytic	Hydrocracking	G/S
	Catalytic cracking / reforming	
	Hydrogenation / dehydrogenation	
	Desulphurisation (HDS)	G/S/L
	Alkylation	Little solid / mostly liquid

JMS 7-2 — THE TWO ROWS THE LECTURE DIDN'T SPELL OUT

- **Gas–liquid–solid:** slurry hydrogenation, ethylene polymerisation, trickle beds. Several physical steps in series; diffusion of dissolved H_2 to the particle is usually the slow one.
- **Solid–solid:** ceramics manufacture. Interface kinetics are essentially unknown because every measurement already contains diffusion.
- Non-catalytic G/S examples worth naming: $UO_2 + 4HF$, roasting ZnS , $CaCO_3 \rightarrow CaO$ in a lime kiln, and burning coke off a spent cracking catalyst.

§ 3 · Lecture 6

Defining the rate — three bases

For a homogeneous reaction the rate per unit volume is the only sensible basis. With a solid catalyst in the vessel, the same disappearance of A can be normalised three different ways — and the quiz will expect you to convert between them.

$$-r_V = \frac{1}{V} \frac{dN}{dt}$$

mol / (m³ reactor · s)

$$-r_W = \frac{1}{W} \frac{dN}{dt}$$

mol / (kg cat · s)

$$-r_S = \frac{1}{S_A} \frac{dN}{dt}$$

mol / (m² cat · s)

$$(-r_V) V = (-r_W) W = (-r_S) S_A$$

The same number of moles per second, three ways of writing it. This is the bridge between a lab rate (per gram) and a design rate (per m³).

JMS 7 — THE CONVERSION THE DESIGN EQUATION ACTUALLY USES

$r_V = \rho_B r_W$, where ρ_B is the **bulk density of the packed bed**. Rates are measured per gram of catalyst; mole balances want them per unit reactor volume.

Also learn the pair of names: the **intrinsic (chemical) rate** covers steps 3–5 only and is written in terms of conditions at the surface; the **global (overall) rate** lumps all seven steps and is written in terms of the **bulk** fluid — because bulk T and C are the only things you can measure or specify.

§ 4 · Lecture 5–6

What a catalyst must do

Five requirements, straight from the notes. Expect a one-mark "state the properties of a catalyst" question.

1. **It alters the rate, not the thermodynamics.** ΔH and ΔG are unchanged — only E_a changes. The driving force of the reaction is untouched.
2. **It must provide a high surface area** — of order 10^2 – 10^3 m²/g. Adsorption is a surface phenomenon, so the number of active sites scales with area.
3. **Supported or unsupported** (bulk). Unsupported example: **Fe for NH₃ synthesis** (fertiliser).
4. **Deposition of the active agent on a support** is what gives mechanical and thermal stability — typically **SiO₂** or **Al₂O₃**.
5. **It must create or contain favourable sites** — the geometry and electronics of the site decide both activity and selectivity.

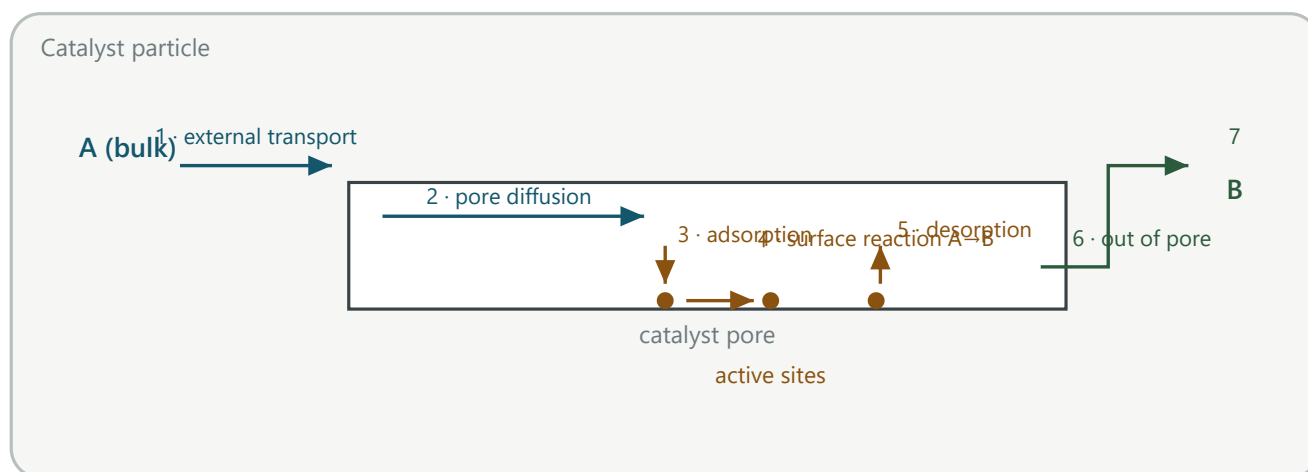
JMS 8-1 — EVIDENCE FOR EACH CLAIM, IF YOU WANT A FULLER ANSWER

- *Small quantity, large effect:* Cu^{2+} at 10^{-9} mol/L measurably speeds Na_2S oxidation.
- *Equilibrium unchanged:* SO_2 oxidation over Pt, Fe_2O_3 and V_2O_5 all give the **same** equilibrium composition.
- *Rate $\propto$ area:* for $\text{H}_2 + \text{O}_2$ on platinum the rate is directly proportional to the platinum surface.
- *Selectivity:* ethanol over different catalysts gives entirely different products — the classic selectivity example.

§ 5 · Lecture 11 · Slide 4

The seven steps of a catalytic reaction

This list is the skeleton of the whole course. Learn it **in order** and know which steps are physical and which are chemical.



Steps 1 & 7 external physical · 2 & 6 internal physical · 3, 4, 5 chemical (= the intrinsic rate).

THE SEVEN STEPS, WITH THE NOTE THAT GOES WITH EACH

#	Step	What the lecture attached to it
1	Mass transfer of A from the bulk to the outer catalyst surface	Governed by C_A and the mass-transfer coefficient
2	Diffusion of A into the pores to the active sites	Catalyst size $\approx 50 \mu\text{m} \rightarrow 300 \mu\text{m}$; pore size $\approx \text{\AA} = 10^{-10} \text{ m}$. The pore mouth must be larger than the diffusing molecule, or the molecule never gets in.
3	Adsorption of A — it binds to an active site	A surface phenomenon: adsorption $\propto$ surface area
4	Surface reaction $A \rightarrow B$	Adsorption and reaction can occur on <i>different</i> sites
5	Desorption of B	Frees the site so the cycle can repeat
6	Diffusion of B back to the outer surface	Mirror of step 2
7	Mass transfer of B to the bulk	Mirror of step 1

TWO CONSEQUENCES THE NOTES UNDERLINE

- Every step has its own activation energy, and $E_A \propto 1/\text{rate}$ — a large barrier means a slow step. The slowest step is the **rate-determining step**.
- **k governs the speed of the reaction** — the rate constant is what carries the temperature dependence into the rate expression.
- For a **non-porous** catalyst, steps 2 and 6 vanish and only five steps remain.

JMS 7-1 — THE DERIVATION THAT TURNS THE SEVEN STEPS INTO ONE EQUATION

Take $A(g) \rightarrow B(g)$ on a non-porous, isothermal catalyst, first order at the surface. Only three steps survive, in series. At steady state their rates are *equal*:

$$r_p = k_m a_m (C_b - C_s) \quad \text{and} \quad r_p = k a_m C_s \quad 7-1, \quad 7-2$$

Eliminate the unmeasurable C_s :

$$r_p = \frac{a_m}{1/k + 1/k_m} C_b \quad 7-4$$

Chemical and physical steps behave as **two resistances in series**, driven by the bulk concentration alone.

Three regimes: $k \ll k_m \rightarrow$ reaction control ($C_s \approx C_b$); $k_m \ll k \rightarrow$ diffusion control ($C_s \approx 0$). Under diffusion control k has dropped out, so the **apparent activation energy collapses** — and because k grows exponentially with T while k_m barely moves, **raising T pushes any system towards diffusion control**.

§ 6 · Slide 5

Catalyst shapes

CLASS NOTES, PAGES 5–6 — MEMORISE ONE PLUS AND ONE MINUS FOR EACH

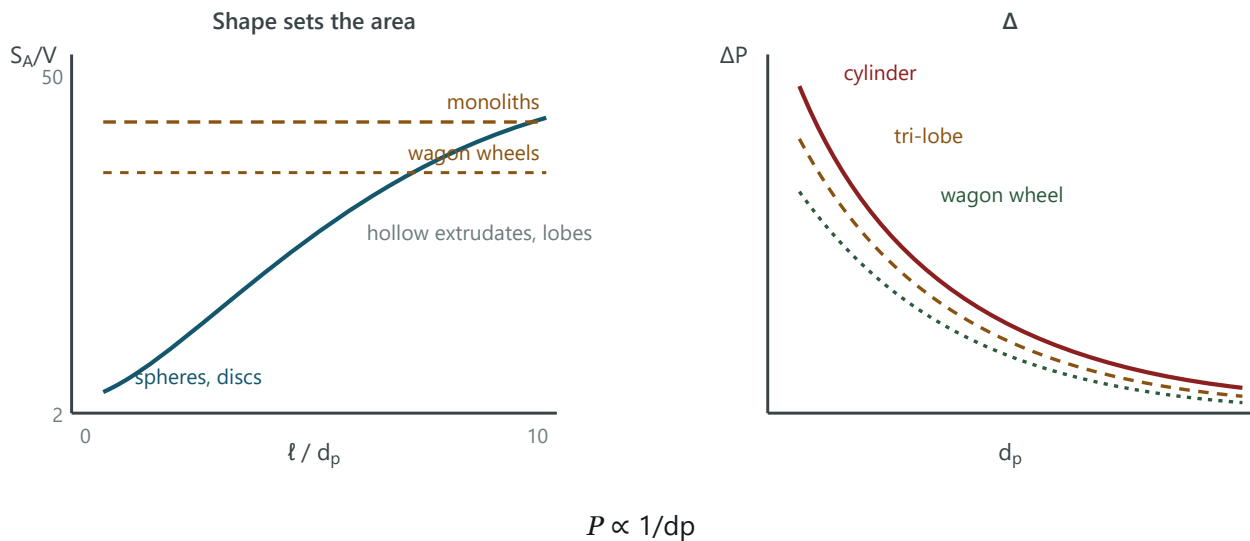
Shape	Characteristics	Used for
Spherical	Low manufacturing cost · high pressure drop · large diffusion length	HDS, methanation
Irregular granule	Low manufacturing cost · high pressure drop · low surface area	Ammonia, formaldehyde
Pellet	Regular shape · good strength · low surface area	CO shift, hydrogenation
Extruded cylinder	Low pressure drop · poor shape and strength	HDS
Monolith	Low pressure drop · small diffusion length · poor radial heat transfer	Exhaust-gas cleaning
Wagon wheel, hollow extrudate, tri-lobe, quadra-lobe	The "shaped" family — engineered specifically to raise external area per unit volume without raising ΔP	

MEMORY HOOK

Going down the list — **sphere** → **granule** → **pellet** → **cylinder** → **lobed** → **monolith** — pressure drop falls and surface-area-per-volume rises, but mechanical strength gets worse. Every shape is a point on that trade-off.

§ 7 · Slide 6

Effect of shape: area vs pressure drop



Left: shaped catalysts break out of the sphere/disc band. Right: shrinking the particle to gain area costs pressure drop.

THE TRADE-OFF, STATED AS THE LECTURE STATED IT

$d_p \propto S_A$ — smaller particles give more external area per unit volume, which raises the overall rate per kg of catalyst. But $\Delta P \propto 1/d_p$, and if ΔP rises you need a bigger compressor or pump. The chosen shape is the one that maximises S_A/V subject to acceptable crush strength and an affordable pressure drop.

► Ergun equation — where the $1/d_p$ comes from

$$\frac{\Delta P}{L} = 150 \frac{\mu v (1-\epsilon)^2}{d_p^2 \epsilon^3} + 1.75 \frac{\rho v^2 (1-\epsilon)}{d_p \epsilon^3}$$

Viscous (laminar) term + inertial (turbulent) term. Both carry d_p in the denominator, and both blow up as the void fraction ϵ falls.

§ 8 · Lecture 7

Catalyst composition

"Catalyst" as loaded into the reactor is a composite. The notes break it into four parts:

Component	Examples from the notes	Role
Catalytic agent	<i>Metals:</i> Fe, Cu, Pt, Pd, Rh <i>Semiconductors:</i> NiO, ZnO <i>Insulators:</i> Al ₂ O ₃ , SiO ₂	The active substance — where the chemistry happens
Support / carrier	SiO ₂ , Al ₂ O ₃ , SiC	The base material. Gives high area from a small amount of an expensive agent, plus mechanical and thermal stability
Promoter	K ₂ O	Added in small amounts during manufacture; improves activity, selectivity, or life
Inhibitor	Cl (halogens)	The opposite — deliberately <i>lowers</i> activity to suppress an unwanted side reaction and raise selectivity

Worked example from the notes: V₂O₅/SiO₂ — SiO₂ is the support, V₂O₅ is the active agent. It runs SO₂ → SO₃ in H₂SO₄ production. A catalyst may also be **unsupported (bulk)** — Fe for ammonia synthesis is the standard example.

JMS 8-10 — THE PROMOTER/INHIBITOR EXAMPLES WORTH QUOTING

- **Promoter:** iron for NH₃ synthesis with Al₂O₃ (also CaO, K₂O) added — it prevents loss of surface area by **sintering**, giving higher activity over a longer life.
- **Inhibitor:** silver on alumina for ethylene oxide. Silver also burns ethylene right through to CO₂; adding **halogen compounds** inhibits the complete oxidation and restores selectivity.
- **Inhibitor ≠ poison.** An inhibitor is added deliberately during manufacture; a poison arrives during operation.

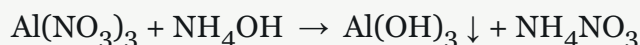
§ 9 · Lecture 7 · Slide 7

Catalyst manufacture

► The main route — precipitation

Precipitation / gel → Decantation / filtration → Washing → Drying → Crushing → Calcination
→ Impregnation → Activation

Example reaction from the notes:



The alumina precursor Al(OH)₃ is filtered, washed, dried and calcined to Al₂O₃. **Washing is critical** — residual salts act as poisons.

► Sol-gel method

- Prepare a **liquid suspension** of particles (~nm to μm) by **hydrolysis of a precursor salt**.
- **Condensation** of that sol leads to **gel formation**.

The notes flag this as a special case of precipitation — silica- and alumina-based catalysts suit it because their precipitates are colloidal.

► Impregnation — wet vs dry

Method	Solution used	Transport mechanism into the pore
Wet impregnation	Excess precursor salt solution — the support is soaked, then the excess is drained	Diffusion + adsorption
Dry impregnation (incipient wetness)	Exact amount of precursor salt solution — just enough to fill the pore volume	Diffusion + capillary flow

In both cases the active metal ends up dispersed as small particles on the internal surface of the support.

JMS 8-9 — THE DISPERSION RESULT THAT MAKES A GOOD SHORT ANSWER

For ortho → para hydrogen conversion over NiO/alumina, a 5.0 wt% catalyst was *less active than a 0.5 wt%* one, because the concentrated soaking solution deposited larger nickel particles. Building the same 5.0 wt% up as **ten separate 0.5 wt% depositions gave 11× the activity** — same nickel, far better dispersion. Moral: beyond a small fraction of a monolayer, more loading does not help; **dispersion** does. That is why chemisorption area is measured rather than weight percent trusted.

§ 10 · Lecture 11

Adsorption: physical vs chemical

Vocabulary first, because the quiz will use it precisely:

- **Adsorbate** — the molecule that sticks.
- **Adsorbent** — the surface it sticks to.

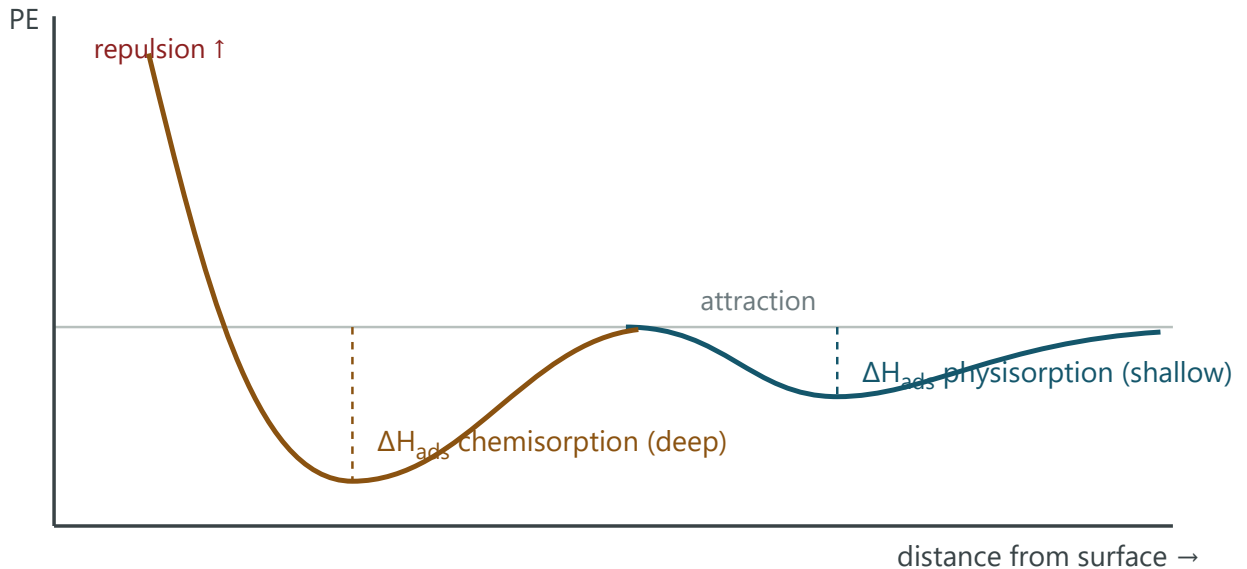
THE EIGHT-ROW COMPARISON — THE SINGLE MOST COMPRESSIBLE THING IN MODULE 1

	Physical adsorption (physisorption)	Chemical adsorption (chemisorption)
Forces	Van der Waals	Chemical bond
Surface required	Any surface can physisorb	Must be chemically active
Heat of adsorption	Low — 0.5 to 5 kcal/g-mol	High — 5 to 100 kcal/g-mol
Comparable to	~ ΔH of condensation	~ ΔH of bond energy
Temperature	Active at low T	Active at high T (relevant to catalysis, > 500 °C)
Reversibility	Reversible	Irreversible
Layers	Multilayer possible	Monolayer only
What it measures	Surface area + pore volume	Number of active sites

SIGN CONVENTION — ALWAYS TRUE

Adsorption is exothermic: $\Delta H_{\text{ads}} < 0$. A molecule that sticks has lost freedom, so entropy falls; for adsorption to be spontaneous ($\Delta G < 0$) the enthalpy term must be negative.

► The potential-energy curve



Physisorption is a shallow well far from the surface; chemisorption is a deep well at bond distance. The bottom of each well is ΔH_{ads} .

WHY BOTH MATTER FOR CHARACTERISATION

Physisorption (N_2 at $-196^\circ C$) → gives you **surface area and pore volume**, because it will cover *any* surface.

Chemisorption (H_2 , CO) → gives you the **number of active sites**, because it only binds where real bonding is possible. Two different experiments answering two different questions.

§ 11 · Lecture 12

Adsorption isotherms & the Langmuir treatment

An **adsorption isotherm** is a plot of the quantity of **adsorbate** held on an **adsorbent**, at equilibrium, at a fixed temperature, against pressure (or concentration in a liquid). Equilibrium here means:

$$r_{ads} = r_{des}$$

rate at which molecules bind to the surface = rate at which they detach

► The four Langmuir assumptions

1. The **adsorbent surface is uniform**, and adsorbed molecules **do not interact** with each other.
2. The **entire surface is equally active** — every site is the same.
3. The **heat of adsorption is constant and independent of coverage** θ (the fraction of occupied sites).
4. Adsorption is limited to a **monolayer** — less than or equal to one layer.

► The derivation — know it line by line

Adsorption needs a collision with a **vacant** site, so it is proportional to pressure $\times$ the free fraction. Desorption only needs an occupied site:

$$r_{ads} = k p(1 - \theta) \quad \cdot \quad r_{des} = k' \theta$$

8-1, 8-2

At equilibrium set them equal and solve for θ :

$$k p(1 - \theta) = k' \theta \Rightarrow k p = \theta(k' + k p) \Rightarrow \theta = \frac{k p}{k' + k p}$$

Divide through by k' and define the **adsorption equilibrium constant** $K = k/k'$:

$$\theta = \frac{K p}{1 + K p} = \frac{v}{v_m}$$

8-3

v = volume adsorbed · v_m = volume needed for a complete monolayer

► The two limits

LOW PRESSURE — $KP \ll 1$

$\theta \approx Kp$. The isotherm is **linear with slope K** — Henry's-law region.

HIGH PRESSURE — $KP \gg 1$

$\theta \rightarrow 1$. The surface **saturates** at one monolayer; $v \rightarrow v_m$.

► Linearising it — two equivalent forms

Both put the Langmuir isotherm into $y = mx + c$ form so that v_m and K come out of a straight line. Start from $v_m/v = 1/(Kp) + 1$:

$$\frac{1}{v} = \frac{1}{K v_m} \cdot \frac{1}{p} + \frac{1}{v_m}$$

Plot $1/v$ vs $1/p$ · slope = $1/(K v_m)$ · intercept = $1/v_m$

$$\frac{p}{v} = \frac{1}{K v_m} + \frac{p}{v_m}$$

8-8

Plot p/v vs p · slope = $1/v_m$ · intercept = $1/(K v_m)$. This is the form BET starts from.

WATCH THE ALGEBRA UNDER EXAM PRESSURE

Whichever linearisation you use, **get v_m first** (from whichever of slope/intercept contains it alone), then back out K from the other. Mixing up which is which is the standard way to lose the marks.

§ 12 · Lecture 12

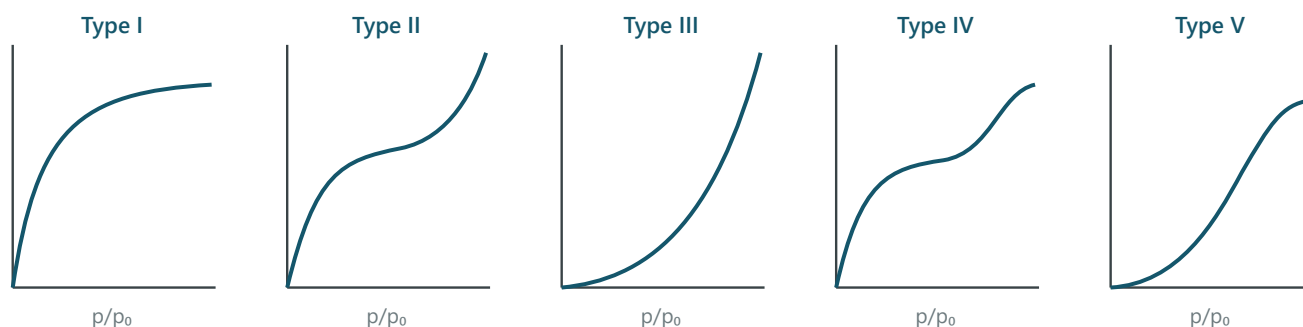
Temkin, Freundlich, and the IUPAC Types

► Two isotherms that relax Langmuir's assumption 3

Langmuir assumed ΔH_{ads} is independent of coverage. In reality the best sites fill first, so ΔH_{ads} falls as θ rises — that is, $\Delta H_{ads} \propto 1/\theta$. Two empirical fixes:

Isotherm	Coverage dependence of ΔH_{ads}	Resulting isotherm
Temkin	ΔH_{ads} falls linearly with θ	$\theta = k_1 \ln(k_2 p)$ — k_1, k_2 constant at a given T
Freundlich	$\Delta H_{\text{ads}}(\theta) = \Delta H_0 \ln \theta$ — falls logarithmically	$\theta = c p^{1/n}$, with $n > 1$

► The five IUPAC isotherm types



y-axis is amount adsorbed; x-axis is p/p_0 , where p_0 is the vapour pressure of the adsorbate.

Type	Shape	What it means physically
I	Rises then plateaus	Monolayer — follows the Langmuir pattern. Microporous solids.
II	S-shaped, no plateau	Multilayer . First layer chemisorption, everything after that physisorption. Non-porous / macroporous.
III	Convex upward throughout	Weak adsorbate–adsorbent interaction — the molecule prefers its own kind to the surface.
IV	Type II, then a plateau	Multilayer + capillary condensation in mesopores. Shows a hysteresis loop.
V	Type III, then a plateau	Weak adsorption + capillary condensation .

§ 13 · Lecture 12

Pores and their sizes

Class	Diameter	Where it sits
Micropore	< 2 nm	Micropores are inside the catalyst pellet — that is where the surface area (and therefore the reaction) lives. Macropores are the outside channels that feed them.
Mesopore	2 nm < d_p < 50 nm	
Macropore	> 50 nm	

ONE-LINE SUMMARY FROM THE NOTES

"**Micropores are inside the catalyst; macro is outside.**" Transport happens in the macropores, reaction happens in the micropores — which is exactly why pore-size distribution, not just total area, decides catalyst performance.

BET — measuring surface area

Langmuir stops at a monolayer. Brunauer–Emmett–Teller extends it to **multilayer** adsorption, which is what N_2 actually does at $-196\text{ }^\circ\text{C}$ — and that extension is what makes the surface area measurable.

$$\frac{p}{v(p_0 - p)} = \frac{1}{v_m c} + \frac{c - 1}{c v_m} \left(\frac{p}{p_0} \right)$$

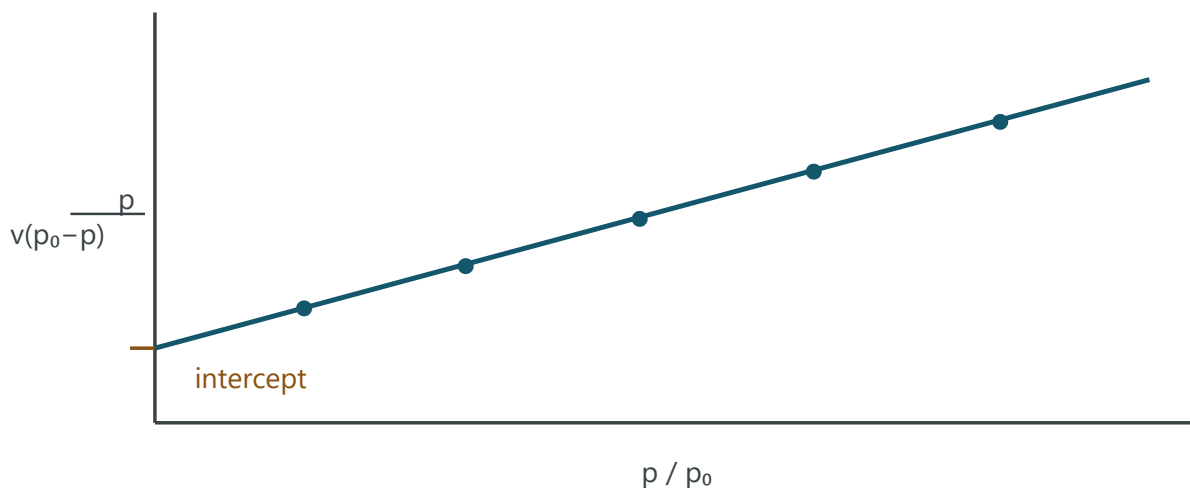
8-9

c = BET constant · p_0 = vapour pressure of the adsorbate · v_m = monolayer volume

$$c = \exp\left(\frac{E_1 - E_L}{R T}\right)$$

E_1 = heat of adsorption of the first layer · E_L = heat of vaporisation (all later layers)

► Getting v_m and c off the plot



$$I = 1 / (v_m c) \quad \text{slope } s = (c - 1) / (c v_m)$$

$$v_m = \frac{1}{I + s} \quad c = \frac{s}{I} + 1$$

8-10 → 8-12

Two unknowns, two pieces of information from one straight line. Add the intercept and slope — the c 's cancel.

► From v_m to surface area

Convert the monolayer *volume* to a *number of molecules*, then multiply by the area each one covers:

$$\text{number of molecules in the monolayer} = \frac{N_0 v_m}{V_{\text{STP}}}$$

N_0 = Avogadro's number · $V_{\text{STP}} = 22,400\text{ cm}^3/\text{mol}$

$$S_g = \frac{N_o v_m}{V_{STP}} \cdot \frac{\alpha}{m}$$

8-13

α = area of one adsorbed molecule (m^2) · m = mass of the sample · S_g = specific surface area, m^2/g

JMS 8-5 — THE TWO SHORTCUTS

$\alpha = 1.09 [M/(N_o \rho)]^{2/3}$ (8-14) gives the molecular area from liquid density. For N_2 at $-195.8^\circ C$ this evaluates to $\alpha = 16.2 \text{ \AA}^2$, and the whole chain collapses to

$$S_g = 4.35 \times 10^4 v_m \text{ cm}^2/g$$

8-15

with v_m in $\text{cm}^3(\text{STP})/g$. **N_2 -only** — do not use it for another adsorbate.

► How the measurement is actually done

From slide 8 and the notes:

1. **Sample degassing** — clean the surface before anything is measured.
2. A **carrier gas** stream of $N_2 + He$ flows over the sample; **N_2 is the adsorbate**, He is the inert carrier.
3. The **test station** measures how much N_2 is taken up at each p/p_0 .

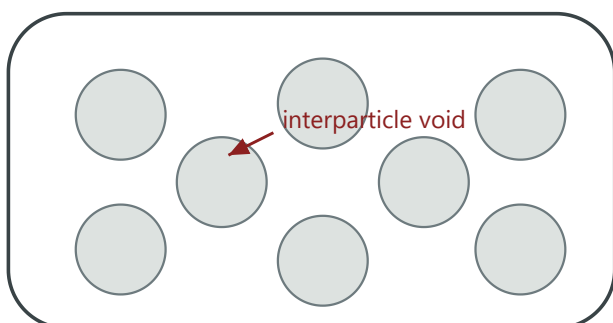
Why N_2 ? The notes give the honest answer: **it is cheaper** — and it physisorbs on anything, which is exactly what you want when measuring total area.

§ 15 · Slide 9

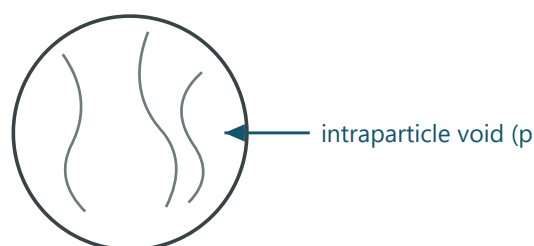
The density set and porosity

Five densities, and they differ only in **which voids the denominator counts**. Get that straight and the whole section is free marks.

packed bed of pellets (A + B)



one pellet (C)



Density	Numerator	Denominator — the part that matters
True density (ρ_s)	Mass of solid	Actual volume, excluding all voids
Skeletal density	Mass of solid	Volume excluding interparticle voids and open pores, but including closed pores
Bulk density (ρ_B)	Mass of solid	Loosely packed volume
TAP density (transverse axial pressure)	Mass of solid	Densely packed volume
Pellet density (ρ_p)	Mass of pellet	Volume of the pellet — pores included

$$\varepsilon_p = \frac{\text{void volume of pellet}}{\text{total volume of pellet}}$$

Pellet porosity — the fraction of the pellet that is pore.

ORDERING CHECK

$\rho_{\text{true}} > \rho_{\text{skeletal}} > \rho_{\text{pellet}} > \rho_{\text{TAP}} > \rho_{\text{bulk}}$. Each step down adds another class of void to the denominator. If your numbers come out in a different order, you have mislabelled something.

JMS 8-6 — POROSITY FROM MEASUREMENTS YOU CAN ACTUALLY MAKE

$\varepsilon_p = V_g \rho_s / (V_g \rho_s + 1)$ (8-16) from the **helium–mercury** experiment, or simply $\varepsilon_p = V_g \rho_p$ (8-17) if you have the pellet density. He fills the pores (giving solid volume); Hg does not enter them at atmospheric pressure (giving pellet volume). Typical $\varepsilon_p \approx 0.5$; a fixed bed is roughly 30% pore / 30% solid / 40% interparticle.

§ 16 · Slide 10

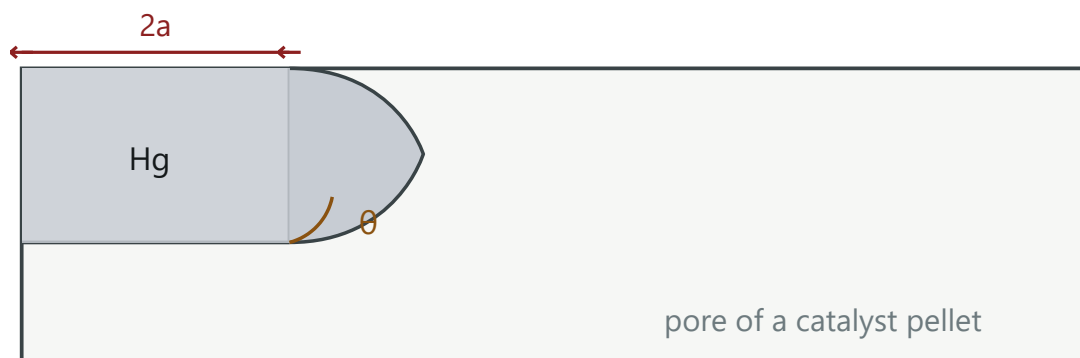
Pore volume — mercury intrusion

Mercury does not wet a catalyst (contact angle $\approx 140^\circ$, so $\cos \theta$ is negative). It must therefore be **forced** into a pore, and the pressure needed tells you the pore radius: **the smaller the pore, the higher the pressure**.

$$a = - \frac{2 \sigma \cos \theta}{p}$$

Ritter & Drake

a = pore radius · σ = surface tension of mercury · $\theta \approx 140^\circ$ · p = applied pressure



Sweep the pressure, record the volume of Hg forced in, and convert each pressure to a pore radius — that gives the **pore-volume distribution**, not just the total.

JMS 8-7 — THE WORKING FORMS

- With σ and $\theta \approx 140^\circ$ substituted: $\alpha(\text{\AA}) = 8.75 \times 10^5 / p(\text{psi})$ 8-19
- **Mercury reaches macropores only.** For micropores, use N_2 **desorption** and the **Kelvin equation**, with contact angle $\theta = 0^\circ$ for nitrogen (it wets).
- Average pore radius, monodisperse pores only: $\bar{a} = 2V_g/S_g$ 8-26 — the Wheeler model. Derive it by treating the pore volume as n straight cylinders of length L : $V_g = n\pi a^2 L$, $S_g = 2n\pi a L$, and divide.

THE THREE CHARACTERISATION EXPERIMENTS, SIDE BY SIDE

Quantity	Method	Physics
Surface area S_g	N_2 physisorption, BET	Multilayer physisorption
Pore volume V_g (macro)	Mercury intrusion	Non-wetting liquid forced in
Pore volume (micro/meso)	N_2 desorption	Capillary condensation, Kelvin equation
Active sites	H_2/CO chemisorption	Chemical bonding — only real sites count

§ 17 · Slides 2-3

Case study: fluidised catalytic cracking

The deck opens with FCC as the industrial anchor for everything that follows: a **fluidised bed** of fine catalyst, with a reactor and a regenerator coupled by a **pressure balance** and a **thermal balance**.

Heavy oil —catalyst→ Gas, Gasoline, Light Cycle Oil



TYPICAL OPERATING VALUES WORTH REMEMBERING AS ORDERS OF MAGNITUDE

Parameter	Typical value
Reactor temperature	480 – 550 °C
Regenerator temperature	650 – 715 °C
Pressure	1.5 – 3 atm
Catalyst / oil ratio	5.5 (wt/wt)
Residence time	2 – 5 seconds
Catalyst	Y-zeolite (faujasite), particle size 50 – 100 µm

WHY IT IS THE RIGHT OPENING EXAMPLE

Every theme of Module 1 is visible in it at once: a **50–100 µm** particle chosen to keep diffusion length short (§5, §7); a **zeolite** chosen for its micropore structure and acid sites (§13); **coke deposition** forcing continuous regeneration (poisons — just past the syllabus); and a **2–5 s** residence time that only works because the intrinsic rate is fast enough that transport, not chemistry, is what you engineer around.

Formula sheet

EVERYTHING IN SCOPE, IN ONE PLACE

Eq.	Relation	Use it when
Power law	$(-r_A) = k_0 e^{-E_a/RT} C_A^n$	Any intrinsic rate
Rate bases	$(-r_V)V = (-r_W)W = (-r_S)S_A; \quad r_V = \rho_B r_W$	Converting lab rate $\leftrightarrow$ design rate
7-1 / 7-2	$r_p = k_m a_m (C_b - C_s) = k a_m C_s$	Steady state: transport rate = reaction rate
7-3	$C_s = k_m C_b / (k_m + k)$	Eliminating the unmeasurable surface concentration
7-4	$r_p = a_m C_b / (1/k + 1/k_m)$	Global rate ; resistances in series
Ergun	$\Delta P/L = 150 \mu v (1-\epsilon)^2 / (d_p^2 \epsilon^3) + 1.75 \rho v^2 (1-\epsilon) / (d_p \epsilon^3)$	Pressure drop through the bed; $\Delta P \propto 1/d_p$
8-1 / 8-2	$r_a = kp(1-\theta); \quad r_d = k'\theta$	Langmuir adsorption / desorption rates
8-3	$\theta = Kp/(1+Kp) = v/v_m$	Langmuir isotherm , pressure form
8-8	$p/v = 1/(Kv_m) + p/v_m$	Linearised Langmuir — BET starts here
—	$1/v = [1/(Kv_m)](1/p) + 1/v_m$	The linearisation used in class
Temkin	$\theta = k_1 \ln(k_2 p)$	ΔH_{ads} falls linearly with coverage
Freundlich	$\theta = c(p)^{1/n}, \quad n > 1$	ΔH_{ads} falls logarithmically with coverage
8-9	$p/[v(p_0 - p)] = 1/(v_m c) + (c-1)p/(cv_m p_0)$	BET equation ; plot vs p/p_0
—	$c = \exp[(E_1 - E_L)/RT]$	Meaning of the BET constant
8-10 $\rightarrow$ 8-12	$I = 1/(v_m c), \quad s = (c-1)/(v_m c), \quad v_m = 1/(I+s)$	Monolayer volume from a BET plot
8-13	$S_g = (N_0 v_m / V_{STP}) \cdot \alpha / m$	Specific surface area from monolayer volume
8-14	$\alpha = 1.09 [M/(N_0 \rho)]^{2/3}$	Area occupied by one adsorbed molecule
8-15	$S_g = 4.35 \times 10^4 v_m \text{ cm}^2/\text{g}$	N₂ at -195.8 °C only
8-7	$S_g = 6/(\rho_p d_p)$	External area of non-porous spheres
8-16 / 8-17	$\epsilon_p = V_g \rho_s / (V_g \rho_s + 1); \quad \epsilon_p = V_g \rho_p$	Porosity from He-Hg or from pellet density
8-18 / 8-19	$a = -2\sigma \cos \theta / p; \quad a(\text{\AA}) = 8.75 \times 10^5 / p(\text{psi})$	Mercury intrusion , $\theta \approx 140^\circ$
8-20	$a - \delta = -2\sigma V_l \cos \theta / [R_g T \ln(p/p_0)]$	Kelvin equation , N ₂ desorption; $\theta = 0^\circ$
8-26	$\bar{a} = 2V_g/S_g$	Wheeler average pore radius — monodisperse only

Numbers to carry in your head

Quantity	Value
Catalyst surface area (requirement)	$10^2 - 10^3 \text{ m}^2/\text{g}$
Catalyst particle size (typical)	$50 \text{ }\mu\text{m} \rightarrow 300 \text{ }\mu\text{m}$ (FCC: 50–100 μm)
Pore size scale	Ångström, $1 \text{ Å} = 10^{-10} \text{ m}$
Micro / meso / macro pore	$< 2 \text{ nm}$ · $2\text{--}50 \text{ nm}$ · $> 50 \text{ nm}$
Heat of physisorption	$0.5 - 5 \text{ kcal/g-mol}$
Heat of chemisorption	$5 - 100 \text{ kcal/g-mol}$
Activation energy for physisorption	$\leq \sim 1 \text{ kcal/mol}$
N_2 normal boiling point	$-195.8 \text{ }^\circ\text{C}$ (liquid $\rho = 0.808 \text{ g/cm}^3$)
α for N_2	16.2 Å^2
N_0 · V_{STP}	6.02×10^{23} · $22,400 \text{ cm}^3/\text{mol}$ (22.4 L)
Contact angle: mercury · nitrogen	140° · 0°
Typical pellet porosity ε_p	≈ 0.5 (bed $\approx 30\%$ pore / 30% solid / 40% interparticle)

§ 20

Rapid self-check

Answer each one out loud before opening it. On the printed copy the answers are already visible — cover them with your hand.

Q A catalyst is added and conversion at equilibrium does not change. Why not?

It lowers the activation energy of the forward and reverse reactions **by the same amount**, so $K_{\text{eq}} = k_f/k_r$ is untouched. ΔH and ΔG are properties of the reactants and products, not of the path.

Q List the seven steps in order and mark which are chemical.

1 external transport of A · 2 pore diffusion of A · **3 adsorption** · **4 surface reaction** · **5 desorption** · 6 pore diffusion of B · 7 external transport of B. Steps 3–5 are chemical and together constitute the **intrinsic rate**; 1, 7 are external physical and 2, 6 internal physical. For a non-porous pellet 2 and 6 disappear.

Q Why does mass-transfer resistance hurt more at high temperature?

k rises exponentially with T while k_m is nearly T -independent. In $1/k + 1/k_m$, raising T drives $1/k \rightarrow 0$, so the fixed $1/k_m$ dominates. The system drifts into diffusion control and the **apparent activation energy collapses**.

Q Smaller particles give a higher rate per kg. Why not just grind the catalyst finer?

$\Delta P \propto 1/d_p$ (Ergun). Below some size the compressor duty, the risk of fluidising or crushing the bed, and the loss of mechanical strength cost more than the extra rate is worth. Shaped catalysts — lobes, wagon wheels, monoliths — are the way to raise S_A/V *without* shrinking d_p .

Q Three ways to tell physisorption from chemisorption in one sentence each.

(i) Heat: 0.5–5 vs 5–100 kcal/mol. (ii) Temperature: physisorption is a low-T, reversible phenomenon; chemisorption is high-T and irreversible. (iii) Selectivity of surface: anything physisorbs, only a chemically active surface chemisorbs — which is precisely why physisorption measures **area** and chemisorption measures **sites**.

Q State the Langmuir assumptions and derive $\theta = Kp/(1+Kp)$.

Uniform surface, no adsorbate–adsorbate interaction, all sites equally active, ΔH_{ads} independent of θ , monolayer only. Then $kp(1-\theta) = k'\theta \Rightarrow kp = \theta(k' + kp) \Rightarrow \theta = kp/(k' + kp)$; divide by k' and set $K = k/k'$.

Q A BET plot has intercept I and slope s . Get v_m and c .

$I = 1/(v_m c)$ and $s = (c-1)/(v_m c)$. Adding them: $I + s = c/(v_m c) = 1/v_m$, so $v_m = 1/(I+s)$ and then $c = s/I + 1$.

Q Which isotherm type would a purely microporous solid give, and why?

Type I. The micropores fill at low p/p_0 and there is no room for multilayer build-up, so the uptake plateaus — the Langmuir pattern.

Q Why is mercury *forced* into pores while nitrogen enters freely?

Mercury does not wet the solid: $\theta \approx 140^\circ$, $\cos \theta < 0$, so the capillary force opposes entry and must be overcome by pressure — hence $a = -2\sigma \cos \theta / p$, small pores needing high pressure. Nitrogen wets ($\theta = 0^\circ$) and even condenses in the pores by capillary condensation, which is why N_2 desorption is the tool for the small end of the distribution.

Q You are given ρ_{bulk} , ρ_{pellet} and ρ_{true} . What can you compute?

Pellet porosity from ρ_p and ρ_s : $\epsilon_p = 1 - \rho_p/\rho_s$, and the pore volume per gram $V_g = \epsilon_p/\rho_p$. The bed void fraction follows from $\epsilon_B = 1 - \rho_B/\rho_p$ — feed that straight into Ergun.

Q Promoter, inhibitor, poison — distinguish them.

Promoter (e.g. Al_2O_3 or K_2O on Fe for ammonia) is added during manufacture to raise activity, selectivity or life. **Inhibitor** (e.g. halogen on Ag/ Al_2O_3 for ethylene oxide) is also added deliberately, but to *suppress* an unwanted reaction and raise selectivity. **Poison** is not added at all — it arrives with the feed or is made by the reaction, during operation.

CL 24303 · CRE-II · Quiz 1 revision. Primary sources: class notes (21 pages) and the lecture deck (**CRE-II_Q1**, 10 slides), covering material taught up to and including 14 August 2026. Boxes marked **JMS** are added from J. M. Smith, *Chemical Engineering Kinetics*, Ch. 7 and Ch. 8-1 → 8-10, and are reference only — everything outside those boxes comes from the lectures.